

Interrogative Questions in Tagalog: Pseudo-Clefts or Wh-Movement?

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Abstract

Virtually all work on the syntax of interrogative (*Wh*-)questions in Tagalog assume that such questions are formed in the language are structured as Pseudo-clefts. In this article, I take a critical look at the empirical and theoretical arguments that have been cited favoring this analysis, and ultimately argue that *Wh*-questions are best analyzed as being derived by *wh*-movement. If correct, this weakens the claim that Pseudo-clefts are typologically quite common (if not ubiquitous) among Austronesian languages (see, e.g., Polinsky & Potsdam to appear). In addition, I raise the issue of whether any language might exclusively employ a Pseudo-Cleft structure to form its interrogatives.

Keywords: *Wh*/interrogative-questions, Fronting, Pseudo-cleft, Austronesian, Tagalog.

1 Introduction

Research into the syntax of *wh*-questions has revealed a number of cross-linguistic parameters including the following:

- (1) **Language, L, is *wh*-ex-situ or *wh*-in-situ.**
 - a. *Ex-situ*: English, Hebrew, Italian, Irish, etc.
 - b. *In-situ*: Chinese, Hindi, Turkish, Palauan (Georgopoulos 1991, Chung et. al. 2006), etc.
- (2) **L {has/does not have} *Partial Wh-Movement*:**
 - a. *Partial*: German, Hindi, Kikuyu (Clements 1984), Kashmiri, etc.
 - b. *Impartial*: English, Irish, French, Arabic, etc.
- (3) **L forms *wh*-questions using a (bi-clausal) **Pseudo-Cleft**; L forms *wh*-questions via ***wh*-movement**.**
 - a. *P-Cleft*: French, Gaelic, (multiple) various Western Austronesian Languages (Polinsky & Potsdam to appear; Wilson-Sturman 2014), various Algonquian languages.
 - b. *Wh-Movement*: English, French, Mandar (Brodkin 2021), Tzotzil (Aissen 1996), etc.

The main focus of this paper is on (3) – specifically – on the claim that Tagalog is among the languages of the world that *exclusively* employs a *Pseudo-cleft structure* (hereafter, P-Cleft) in forming its *wh*-questions. Broadly speaking, what this means is that interrogative questions in Tagalog have the crude structure shown in (4), rather than the more familiar interrogative clause structure, shown in (5).¹

- | | |
|---|--|
| (4) <i>(Pseudo)-Cleft Structure</i>
[TP WH _j $\emptyset_{\text{COP}}$ [DP [CP Op _j t _j ...]]] | (5) <i>Fronting Structure</i>
[CP WH _j C [TP t _j]] |
|---|--|

Although unfamiliar, a P-Cleft analysis for *wh*-question in Tagalog has been argued for, and is now more or less presupposed by, virtually all of the syntactic literature on the language. Outside of Tagalog and related (Western) Austronesian languages (see below), a P-Cleft analysis for *wh*-questions has been proposed primarily as a *variant* of the more familiar structure in (5) derived by *wh*-movement. To better understand the issue, one can first look at languages like French, which appears to employ both syntactic ‘strategies’ to form interrogative questions (Guilliot and Oiry 2011).

¹Here, I assume that the structure in (5) ...which involves a *wh*-phrase being fronted to an $\bar{A}$ -position such as Spec, CP directly from its θ -position (represented below and throughout as a trace *t* or by the more neutral ‘___’ notation. See Chomsky (1973) and the work in its wake. See Cheng & Cover (2006) and papers therein for historical and contemporary views of the topic.

- | | |
|--|--|
| (6) Qui a cousiné la tarte aux
who have baked the pie at-the
pommes?
apples
‘Who baked the apple pie?’ | (7) C’est qui qui a cusiné la
it.is who who have backed the
tarte aux pommes?
pie to-the apples
‘Who baked the apple pies.?’ |
|--|--|

The co-existence of more than one structure carrying out the same basic function is documented elsewhere (e.g., Greek (Iatirdou 2019); Norwegian (Gundel 2018)). Outside of the Austronesian languages, however, the claim that a language has only a single *unique syntax* for interrogatives is rather rare.² Within contemporary studies, however, one can find multiple works focused on supporting an analysis of *wh*-questions that *exclusively* employ P-Cleft syntax for interrogative questions. A non-comprehensive list of Austronesian languages for which a P-Cleft analysis of *wh*-questions has been proposed include:³

- (8) *Austronesian Languages with P-Cleft wh-questions:*
- a. SVO: Madurese (Davies 2003), Jurai (Jensen 2014), Indonesian (Cole & Harmon 1998), Marshallese (Wilson-Struman 2010)
 - b. VOS: Malagasy (Potsdam 2006, 2007, 2009), Palauan (Gerorgopolous 1991, etc.
 - c. VSO:

Outside of the Austronesian language family, an *exclusive* P-Cleft analysis of *wh*-questions analysis has recently been proposed for Gaelic by David Adger and Gilian Ramchand (Adger & Ramchand (2005)⁴).⁵ If a P-Cleft structure is as ubiquitous among (Western) Austronesian languages and the fewer unrelated languages/language families that have been documented as it seems, then the obvious question is — why? As far as I can tell, this question is hardly ever raised let alone addressed in the literature. The question is a serious one, though. To state it differently: What kind of information exactly does a language-learner use to determine which of the strategies ((2) or (3)) to adopt when beginning to form (and comprehend) her *wh*-questions? Although not focussed on this broader issue, Potsdam (2009) offers a hypothesis that could, in theory, explain why some (V-initial) languages might require a P-Cleft structure over one derived by *wh*-movement. Concretely, he proposes (9).⁶

²As has recently come to my attention by Seth Cable (p.c.), the Algonquian languages are a notable exception. See Johnson and Macaulay 2015 and references therein.

³See Kaufman (2020) for an overview of P-Clefts in Philippine/Austronesian languages. See also Erlewine & Lim (2022) for a very recent on cleft sentences in Bikol (Austronesian/Philippino. See also Chung (1998, 2013) who argues against a P-Cleft analysis of *wh*-questions in Chamorro (Austronesian). Hence, not *all* Austronesian languages have been argued to form *wh*-questions via the P-Cleft strategy.

⁴See Section 5 of this paper.

⁵See also Kroeber (1999) on pseudo-cleft *wh*-question within the Salish language family.

⁶Universal 12-VP is a slightly weaker form of the generalization posited by Oda (2002, 2005).

- (i) If a language uses VP-Raising to derive V1 word order then it will have available (P-)Cleft to form *wh*-questions

(9) *Universal 12-VP:*

If a language uses VP-Raising to derive V1 order, then it cannot have *wh*-movement.

Universal 12-VP does not help much for Tagalog. As I have argued elsewhere, Tagalog does not utilize VP-Raising to derive its dominant V1 word order. I will not present a defense of this point here, but will instead refer the reader to Sabbagh (2012) (see also, Clements & Polinsky (2017) for an overview of Austronesian V-initial order(s) and their respective analyses). If not Universal 12-VP, what would ‘force’ interrogatives in Tagalog (and perhaps other Western Austronesian Language) to ‘choose’ the structure in (4) over that in (5)? One response to this question is that it is something specific in the nature of *wh*-phrases in Tagalog (and perhaps other languages) that requires them to function as predicates rather than as arguments (or rather, as quantificational operators that bind a variable from an argument position). No serious proposal of this sort has been proposed to my knowledge, and it is not an approach I will take here. Instead, I take on the rather limited but difficult task of carefully defending the view that Tagalog *wh*-questions do not *exclusively* involve a P-Cleft structure after all, contra the prevailing view.⁷ If my arguments are sound, then the validity that any language might *exclusively* employ the alternative P-Cleft strategy is seriously called into question.

The remainder of this paper is organized as follows: Section 2 introduces the two main analyses for *wh*-questions in Tagalog (the P-Cleft and *wh*-movement analysis, respectively). Section 3 sets out the argument against the P-Cleft analysis by examining the distribution of second position pronouns as well as modals in the context of *wh*-questions. Section 4 presents a new argument in favor of an analysis involving *wh*-movement based on an obligatory obligatory pied-piping effect observed robustly in languages that have obligatory *wh*-movement. Section 5 offers remarks and replies to the work of Adger & Ramchand (2005), and presents additional arguments for a movement analysis of *wh*-questions and additional arguments disf-favoring a P-Cleft analysis. Section 6 concludes this paper.

2 A P-Cleft (Pseudo-cleft) Analysis for Interrogatives

Wh-questions in Tagalog are superficially pretty unremarkable. As is typologically expected, especially for a predicate/head-initial languages, *wh*-phrases surface at the left periphery of the clause in *wh*-questions. Consider the examples in (10).⁸

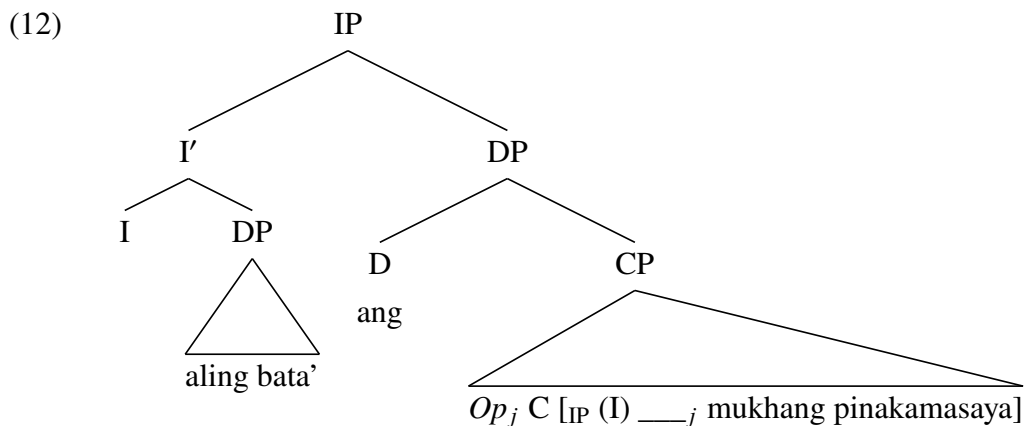
Briefly, VP-Raising refers to a movement process of VP (typically consisting of the verb and its object is fronted to some left-peripheral position in the clause, which derives (among other things) VOS word order. See Clements & Polinsky ([date]) for an overview.

⁷See also, Paul (2007) for a refutation of the claim that *Wh*-questions also do not involve a P-Cleft structure, contra Keenan 1976:249; Potsdam 2006, 2008, 2009; and Paul 2001). See also Kaufman (2020).

⁸This is consistent with the fact that Tagalog is a Verb/Head-initial language, which – as pointed out in much of the Typological literature, tend to be *wh*-initial as well (see, e.g., Greenberg’s Universal 12 (Greenberg (1963): *If a language has dominant word order in declarative sentences, it always puts interrogative words or phrases first in interrogative questions.....*). The glossing of *ang* and *-ng* as D/C at this point is to remain ambivalent as to whether this element is a determiner or a complementizer, on which — see Section 3.1 below.

- (10) a. **Aling bata'** ang mukhang pinakamasaya?
 which.LK child NOM/COMP appear most.happy
 'Which child looks the most happy?' (web)
- b. **Sino=ng** gusto sumali?
 who.COMP wants NOM.INF.join
 'Who wants to join?'
- (11) **Saan bumili** ng sorbetes ang mga bata'?
 where NOM.PERF.buy GEN ice-cream NOM PL child
 'Where did the children buy ice-cream?'

Most contemporary analyses that I am aware of make a distinction between the interrogatives in (10) from those in (11). Concretely, the interrogatives in (10) involve the questioning of a 'core' argument (e.g., Agent, Theme, Goal), whereas the interrogatives like (11) involve the questioning of a phrase that functions as an adjunct.⁹ According to authors like Kroeger (1993: Chapter 3); Richards (1998); Aldridge (2005) and others, the *wh*-phrase in (10) is a predicate (=complement to I, in place of a VP, AP, DP, or PP predicate¹⁰), and the element that appears between the *wh*-phrase and the 'remainder' of the clause (i.e., *ang*) is analyzed as a Determiner (=D) that has a *Free Relative Clause* (Bresnan & Grimshaw (1978); van Riemsdijk (2008) and references therein) within its complement domain. This structure is illustrated in (14).



According to this analysis, interrogative questions involving arguments like (10) have the same basic structure as clauses with indefinite nominal predicates followed by a FRC subject. Compare, for instance, the questions in (10) to the sentences in (13).¹¹

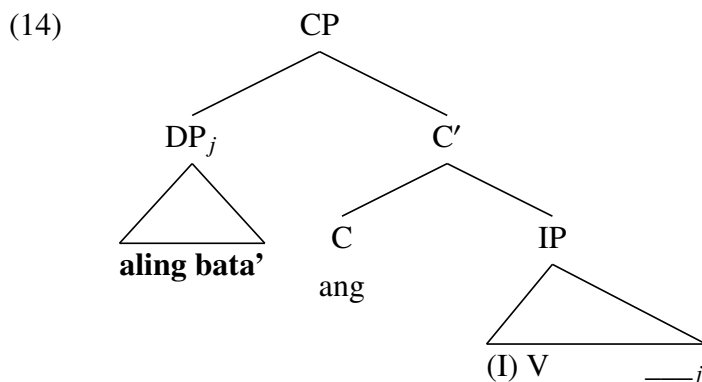
⁹As usual, there are certain kinds of phrases in certain context where the distinction between argument and adjunct is less than clear cut. See Section 6.6.1 for some important discussion relating to this point.

¹⁰There is no (overt) copula in Tagalog, therefore all major categories appear to be able to function as the main predicate (phrase) of the clause.

¹¹Sentences like (13) are sometimes characterized as focus-constructions, and are usually assumed to have the same type of cleft-structure of *wh*-questions. Assuming that *wh*-questions have much in common (pragmatically, and/or semantically), attempting to unify them in terms of their structure is a natural approach.

- (13) [DP Bata'] [DP ang mukhang pinakamasaya].
 child NOM seem.LK most.happy
 'The one who seems most happy is a child.'

The P-Cleft analysis in (10) contrasts with the more familiar structure for *wh*-questions according to which they are derived by *wh*-movement from an argument position to a left-peripheral $\bar{A}$ -position (e.g., Spec, CP). This analysis is sketched in (14).



There are two important differences between these two structures: On the P-Cleft analysis, the element *ang* is analyzed as a Determiner (D); and *wh*-questions have a bi-clausal syntax. On the *wh*-movement analysis, *ang* is analyzed as a Complementizer (=C), and *wh*-questions have a mono-clausal syntax.

In an interesting twist to the plot, the authors cited above have argued that the grammar of Tagalog countenances both of these structures. Both structures are correct and required for an adequate description of the facts, but which structure is preferred or required depends on a crucial property of the *wh*-phrase — namely, whether it is an argument or an adjunct. Concretely, the majority of authors cited above have argued that the P-Cleft structure in (12) occurs when the *wh*-phrase is an argument of the verb, while adjunct *wh*-phrases, on the other hand, undergo *wh*-movement to Spec, CP as illustrated in (14). Rather than simplifying any analytical burden, proposing two structures for interrogatives presents a novel problem: Given two structures S_1 and S_2 , where S_1 and S_2 express the same *propositional force* (=interrogative Q), how does the grammar select S_1 over S_2 or vice-versa? An explanatory answer would presumably have to go farther than simply referring broadly to a distinction between the argument/adjunct-hood status of the *wh*-phrase. Although argument/adjunct asymmetries play a significant role for many processes in many languages, using it here in this way amounts to nothing more than a stipulation without a particularly fleshed-out theory. As stated in the introduction, my aim for this article is to demonstrate two things: First, that the existing evidence for a P-Cleft analysis of interrogatives in Tagalog is weak or inconclusive; Second — that the P-Cleft analysis both over and under-generates an important set of examples that have either gone unnoticed or which haven't been analyzed at the right level of detail to make a sufficient argument for a P-Cleft structure. In the end, the goals for this paper are fairly modest in terms of the conclusions I hope to reach:

- Tagalog does not *exclusively* use a P-Cleft structure for forming interrogative questions (i.e., *wh*-movement is possible and utilized for both argument and adjunct *wh*-phrases).
- (Western) Austronesian languages are therefore not uniquely characterized by their use of a P-Cleft structure for forming interrogative questions.

The second point here will follow here from the first. In fact, if Chung (1998) and Brod-kin (2020) are correct in analyzing *wh*-questions in Chamorro and Mandar (respectively) as being derived by *wh*-movement, then this conclusion is already established. Still, the arguments for *wh*-movement in Tagalog involves language particular details, and because of this my primary focus will be on these arguments. One may wish to take this paper more broadly as developing a hypothesized universal, namely:

- No language exclusively requires a P-Cleft structure for forming interrogative questions.

Of course, I am no position to defend such a bald claim, but it would be fair to consider this article as an invitation to the interested reader to do so. (See additionally the comments in the conclusion section of this article.)

2.1 A Functional Head: *C* (and/) or *D*

One of the most often cited arguments for associating interrogative questions like (10) with a P-Cleft structure like (12) comes from a very subtle morphosyntactic fact. Concretely, in interrogatives involving an argument (but not for those involving an adjunct), the functional morpheme *ang* appears between the *wh*-phrase and the ‘remainder’ of the clause. Orthographically, this functional element is usually represented the same way as the functional element that precedes nominative subjects (glossed *NOM*). Consider the examples in (15).¹²

- (15) a. Mukhang *pinakamasaya* **ang** itong mga bata’.
 seem.LK most.happy **NOM** these.LK PL child
 ‘These children seemed the most happy.’
 b. Kakagat-in ni Juan **ang** aso.
 IMPERF.bit-ACC NS Juan **NOM** dog
 ‘Juan will/might bight the dog.’

The apparent identity between the element *ang* in *wh*-questions like (10) and *ang* as a marker of a (nominative) subject in examples like (15) has been taken as an argument that they are instantiations of one and the same syntactic category — namely, *D* (see Borise (2015, 2022) for a recent defense of this view). Between the two derivations for interrogative questions presented above, only the P-Cleft analysis makes this unification of *ang* for

¹²I use *NOMINATIVE* as the case associated with the subject. Alternatively, it may be analyzed as an *ABSOLUTE* subject (see Aldridge (2004)). This distinction is immaterial to the topic at hand. Note also that the gloss *NOM*. This reflects a particular assumption about the ‘voice’ morphology of the verb, but can be safely ignored throughout this article.

examples like (10) and (15) possible. To my knowledge, this (simple) argument for the P-Cleft analysis has never been challenged, until now.

In Kroeger's (1993) analysis, and in analyses going even as far back as Bloomfield (1917), case-markers on nominal phrases have been analyzed as *pro-clitic* to the nominal phrases that they preceded. Therefore, in simple sentences like (16) (as presented by Kroeger 1993:14), each case marker is represented as being ajoined to the left of the nominal as a pro-clitic, including *ang*.¹³

- (16) a. B-um-ili ang=lalake ng=isda sa=tindahan.
 AV.PERF.buy s=man GEN=fish LOC=store
 'The man bought some fish from the store.'
 (Kroeger 1993, pp.14)
- b. Ip-in-am-bili ng=lalake ng=isda ang=pera.
 IV-PERF-buy GEN=man GEN=fish s=money
 'The man bought the fish with money.'
 (Kroeger 1993, pp.14)

Evidence that case-particles like *ang* and *ng* (= [naŋ]) are indeed proclitic comes from the observation that the final nasal can assimilate to the initial consonant of the following noun. This process of assimilation is illustrated in (17).¹⁴

- (17) a. *ang lalake* ⇒ /aŋ=lalake/ ⇒ [an=lalake]
 b. *ang pera* ⇒ /aŋ=pera/ ⇒ [am=pera]
 c. *ng isda* ⇒ /naŋ=isda/ ⇒ [naŋ=isda]
 d. *ng lalake* ⇒ /naŋ=lalake/ ⇒ [nan=lalake]

This process is not regularly represented in the standard orthography of the language (presumably the reason it has gone unnoticed). An early pedagogical grammar of Tagalog (Bowen 1965) does, however, represents this process of assimilation phonetically in introductory dialogues that introduce each new unit of this text. A couple of examples include the following examples (18) and (19).

- (18) Diyan lahat *ang* (= [an]) tungo natin.
 there all NOM going 3.PL.GEN
 'We're all going to the same place.'
 (Bowen 1965: 371)

¹³Many authors use this kind of notation without explicitly stating any assumptions about the proclitic status of *ang* or other case markers. I assume here that this notation indicates the proclitic status on the basis of the '=' notation. I also use this notation in the examples, but only when relevant.

¹⁴More generally, the process may be described as a rule of *Nasal Place Assimilation*:

- (i) /ŋ/ → [α place] / ____ [α place]

- (19) Tamang-tama sa Linggo *ang* (= [am]) patapos.
 right-right OBL Sunday NOM end
 ‘The end (of the novena) falls on Sunday.’
 (Bowen 1965:372)

By contrast, the *ang* that surfaces in *wh*-questions like (10) seems to behave as an *enclitic*. This is because the *ang* that appears in *wh*-questions may be realized either independently (as [an]), or, it may be expressed as a reduced (and invariant) form (= [ŋ]), as illustrated by the examples in (20).

- (20) a. Sino=[ŋ] n-agsabing bawal kumain sa ICU?
 who= NOM.PERF.say.LK not.allowed NOM.PERF.eat LOC ICU
 ‘Who said it’s not allowed to eat in the ICU?’ (web)
 b. Ano=[ŋ] binili mo kahapon?
 what= OF.PERF.buy 2SG(GEN) yesterday?
 ‘What did you buy yesterday?’ (web)
 c. Sino=[ŋ] pumatay kay Heneral Luna?
 who= NOM.PERF.kill OBL General Luna
 ‘Who killed General Luna?’
 d. Sino=[ŋ] um-inom ng beer?
 who= NOM.PERF.drink GEN beer
 ‘Who drank the beers?’ (web)

Bowen’s pedagogical text provide numerous additional examples of *ang* behaving as an enclitic which attaches to a clause-initial *wh*-phrase. Two such examples, examples (21) and (22), are presented below.

- (21) E, *sino ang* ([sinʊŋ]) n-amahala ng pagkontrato ng mga
 who NOM.PERF.took-charge GEN contracting GEN PL
 akyan para sa libing?
 transportation for OBL funeral
 ‘Who arranged the transportation for the funeral?’
 (Bowen 1965: 372)
 (22) *Ano=ng* ([anʊŋ]) ginaw-an mo?
 What= PERF.do-ACC 2SG(GEN)
 ‘What did you do?’
 (Bowen 1965: 445)

Crucially, in the context of declarative sentences where *ang* is assumed to mark the nominative subject, it is never reduced in the same manner that we see in examples like (21)-(22). Consider example (23), for instance. Here, the phonological context for reduction of *ang* to [ŋ] is presumably met, but reduction is nevertheless impossible as the ungrammaticality

of examples such as (24) show.¹⁵

- (23) *Gumaganti* **ang** mga empleyado.
 NOM.IMPERF.retaliate **NOM** PL employee
 ‘The employees are retaliating?’

- (24) **Gumaganti*=[ŋ] mga empleyado.
 NOM.IMPERF.retaliate=**NOM** PL employee
 (Cf. *g<um>aganti* [**am=anga**] (=aŋ+/m/) *empleyado*).

Furthermore, in the context of *wh*-questions, I have yet to find cases where *ang* surfaces as a proclitic to the phrase that follows the *wh*-phrase. For instance, consider again example (20b) from above, repeated below as (25).

- (25) *Ano*=[ŋ] *binili* *mo* *kahapon*?
 what=COMP ACC.PERF.buy 2SG(GEN) yesterday?
 ‘What did you buy yesterday?’

I have found no examples comparable to an example like (26), where *ang* behaves like a proclitic with potential to assimilate with the initial consonant of a subject (as summarized in (17), and illustrated by examples (18)-(19)).

- (26) **Ano* [**am**]=*binili* *mo* *kahapon*?
 what **NOM**=ACC.PERF.buy 2SG(GEN) yesterday?
 ‘What did you buy yesterday?’

The take away here is rather simple: The argument for the P-Cleft analysis (based on the functional element *ang*) is undercut — to say the least — by evidence that indicates that there may be two distinct functional morphemes that just happen to be represented by the same orthographic ‘word’ (and sometimes even pronounced the same), but nonetheless belong to distinct categories with potentially different allomorphs. Concretely, I propose that the proclitic/enclitic behavior of *ang* is tied to its syntactic category as either a D (as in (27)) or a C (as in (28)).

- (27) D[NOM] ↔ /ang=/
 a. → [am=] ____
 b. → [an=] ____
 c. → [ang=] ____

- (28) C[wh] → /=ang/
 a. → [=ang]
 b. → [=ng]

If this much is reasonable, then we have eliminated one of the main arguments that is cited in favor of a P-Cleft analysis of interrogatives in Tagalog. In fact, the temptation to fully assimilate *ang* in all contexts where it occurs to a single syntactic element fails the

¹⁵It can be a bit tricky to elicit judgments on this point, given the subtle phonological differences. It is telling that in terms of orthography alone, consultants could distinguish the forms in (23) from those like (24) when presented.

test of descriptive adequacy given the new facts presented here. Moving forward, I will assume that *ang* in interrogative questions is a realization the category C[wh], and that it is represented in (14) (the structure derived by *wh*-movement). The goal for what follows from here is to further defend an analysis of *wh*-questions for Tagalog as being derived by *wh*-movement.

2.2.1 An Argument/Adjunct Asymmetry As it happens, the hypothesis that *ang* is uniformly a D supports the P-Cleft analysis of interrogatives equally as much as it supports a *fronting* (= *wh*-movement) analysis for at least a subset of interrogative sentences. Concretely, when an interrogative phrase has the function of an adjunct, no form of *ang* is ever present. Some examples of adjunct interrogative questions are provided in (29).

- (29)
- a. **Bakit** kumakain ng mga bato ang aking tuta?
why NOM.IMPERF.eat GEN PL rock NOM my.LK puppy
'Why is my puppy eating rocks?' (web)
 - b. **Kailan** n-agluto ng adobo si Nanay?
when NOM.PERF-cook GEN adobo NOM mother
'When did Mother cook adobo?'
 - c. **Saan** ako m-akakakuha ng backpack na (i)to?
where 1.SG(NOM) NOM.CONT-get GEN backpack LK this
'Where can I get this backpack?'
 - d. **Paano** gumagana ang mRNA COVID-19 na mga bakuna?
how NOM.IMPERF.work NOM mRNA COVID-19 LK PL vaccine
'How do mRNA Covid-19 vaccines work?'

The same pattern is repeated in embedded clauses. Consider example (30).

- (30) Hindi ko alam [_{CP} kung **saan** gaganap-in ang pulong]]
not 1SG(GEN) know C[wh] where FUT.held-ACC NOM meeting
'I don't know where the meeting will be held.'

Crucially, examples like (31) are impossible.

- (31)
- a. ***Paano ang** gumagana ang mRNA COVID-19 na mga bakuna?
how C/D NOM.IMPERF.work NOM mRNA COVID-19 LK PL vaccine
'How do mRNA Covid-19 vaccines work?'
 - b. ***Paano=ng** gumagana ...
how=C/D NOM.IMPERF.work

For those who cite *ang* as evidence for a P-Cleft analysis for argument *wh*-questions, the lack of such evidence with adjunct-*wh*-questions is taken as evidence for *wh*-movement to derive *wh*-questions for adjuncts. This conclusion, in addition to be unsubstantiated by the facts presented here, would create a complexity to the grammar that still alludes explanation. On the other hand, if *wh*-movement is a strategy for all interrogative questions, then the distinction between argument and adjunct *wh*-question can be accounted for given the

following spell-out rules for C[WH].

(32) *Wh-C Agreement in Tagalog:*

- a. C[wh] $\leftrightarrow$ {*ang*, *=ng*} / WH[+ARG] in Spec, CP
- b. C[wh] $\leftrightarrow$ $\emptyset$ / WH[-ARG] in Spec, CP

One may reasonably argue that (32) is simply replacing one stipulation with another. While I generally concur with the sentiment of this objection, the stipulation in (32) is superior in at least two respects: First, similar types of *Wh-C Agreement* are well precedented in other languages (see, e.g., Chung 1998 (on Chamorro) Irish (McCloskey 1979, 2002) ; Torrence (2013) (on Wolof); and von Koppen (2018) for a comparative cross-linguistic overview.) Second, the rule in (32) is *local* — the difference between argument and adjunct interrogative questions is ‘localized’ by an agreement rule that operates under local syntactic conditions (e.g., Spec-Head agreement¹⁶). The alternative, however, stipulates a difference in entire syntactic structures for argument and adjunct *wh*-questions.

3 The Distribution of 2P Pronouns and Modals

This section reviews an argument from the distribution of second position (2P) pronouns that has been taken as support for the P-Cleft analysis of Tagalog *wh*-questions. I aim to demonstrate here, at the very least, that the argument based on the reported facts is weakened by some previously unnoticed (or not more broadly cited) distributions for 2P pronouns.

3.1 Second Position Pronouns

In Tagalog, if a clause contains a pronominal argument or one of a number of adverbial particles, these elements occur in the ‘second position’ within their clause (more concretely, after the first word or major phrase in the clause. See Kroeger 1993: Chapter 5; Anderson 2005; Kaufman 2006). While examples have been given in the literature already cited, I add a few more here in order to establish the ‘basic paradigm’ and therefore to provide the context to introduce some previously unnoticed data. Consider the examples in (33) and (34), where a pronominal argument occurs in second position (i.e., after the first word of the sentence).

- (33) ...hindi **siya** m-amamatay patungo sa Hukay...
 NEG 3SG(NOM) NOM-IRREAL.die towards LOC Pit
 ‘He will not die in the Pit.’ (web)

- (34) N-agluto **ako** ng talong at itlog para agahan ko.
 NOM.PERF-COOK 1SG(NOM) GEN eggplant and egg for breakfast 1SG(GEN)

¹⁶Or, in more contemporary analyses, locality conditions on the operation of Agree (Chomsky 2000, 2001; Deal 2023 (for overview))

‘I prepared (i.e. cooked) eggplant and eggs for my breakfast.’ (web)

Although word order is generally free in Tagalog, the placement of the pronouns in examples like (33) and (34) are more or less fixed in their position as second-position pronouns. Placing them further to right results in ungrammaticality even when what would seem like a potential syntactic and/or phonological phrase boundary would provide an otherwise appropriate phrase for the pronoun to be placed to the immediate right of.

- (35) a. ??...hindi m-amamatay **siya** patungo sa Hukay...
 NEG NOM-IRREAL.die 3SG(NOM) towards LOC Pit
 ‘He will not die in the Pit.’
 b. *...hindi m-amamatay patungo sa Hukay **siya**...
 NEG NOM-IRREAL.die towards LOC Pit 3SG(NOM)
- (36) a. ??N-agluto ng talong at itlog **ako** para agahan ko.
 NOM.PERF-COOK GEN eggplant and egg 1SG(NOM) for breakfast 1SG(GEN)
 ‘I prepared (i.e. cooked) eggplant and eggs for my breakfast.’
 b. *N-agluto ng talong at itlog para agahan ko **ako**.
 NOM.PERF-COOK GEN eggplant and egg for breakfast 1SG(GEN) 1SG(S)

The comparative acceptability of the examples of (33)-(34) compared to the unacceptability of (35)-(36) establish the generalization that pronouns in Tagalog must appear in second position within their clause, basically following Kroeger’s descriptive generalization (Kroger 1993).¹⁷ This generalization may be stated descriptively as in (37).¹⁸

- (37) *Placement of Clitics in Tagalog (descriptive):*
 Clitics occur immediately after the first lexical or phrasal daughter of clause (=TP/CP) containing the head which governs them.¹⁹

A further effect of this rule can be observed by the comparative acceptability between examples like (38a) and (38b). In both examples, the pronoun *siya* (3SG) is an argument of an embedded clause verb. By the rule in (37), therefore, it should surface in second-position within the embedded clause and not in second-position within the higher clause. This is correct, as the contrast in (38) illustrates.

- (38) a. N-agasabi si Juan [na [TP kumakagat **siya** ng aso]].
 NOM-IMPERF.say NOM Juan C[-Q] NOM-IMPERF.bite 3SG(NOM) NS dog
 ‘Juan was saying that Maria was biting the dog.’

¹⁷See Kaufman for a more recent, and more formalized version of this idea.

¹⁸As Kaufman points out (Kaufman 188, footnote 4), this condition should be replaced by a more general condition that a clitic pronoun cannot leave the DP that is contained within.

¹⁹Kroeger 1993 used the domain of *maximal projection* rather than clause in his descriptive generalization. Because he assumed a mostly non-configurational analysis of Tagalog clauses, these terms were mostly coterminous. In Section 3.2, we will find this statement of the domain for 2P clitics to be useful.

- b. *N-agsasabi **siya** si Juan [_{CP} na [_{TP} kumakagat ____ ng
 NOM-IMPERF.say MSG(NOM) NOM Juan C[-Q] NOM.IMPERF.bite GEN
 aso]].
 dog

An exception to the clause bound behavior of pronouns occurs — as is common cross-linguistically — in ‘restructuring’ environments. As illustrated by example (39), where the embedded clause is an infinitive selected by a restructuring verb such as *gusto* (‘want’), then the clitic(s) which originate within an embedded clause may surface in the main clause (in second position).

- (39) **Gusto siyang** patahimik-in ng Vatican.
 want 3SG(NOM).LK INF.CAUSE.silence-ACC GEN Vatican
 ‘The Vatican wants to silence him.’

With the background on second-position pronouns in mind, we now consider an argument made on the basis of these pronouns supporting the P-Cleft analysis of (argument) *wh*-questions. First, as Aldridge (2002) observes, when an argument is questioned, the *wh*-phrase cannot function as a host for a second-position pronoun. Instead, any such pronoun must be in second position within the ‘remainder’ of the clause. Examples such as (40)-(42) illustrate this fact.²⁰

- (40) a. **Aling bata’** ang i-sasama *mo* sa piknik?
 which.LK child ACC-CONTEMP.take 2SG(GEN) LOC picnic
 ‘Which child will you take to the picnic?’
 b. ***Aling bata’** (*mo*) ang (*mo*) i-sasama ____ sa
 which.LK child (2SG(GEN)) (2SG(GEN)) ACC-CONTEMP.take LOC
 picnic?
 picnic
 ‘Which child will you take to the picnic?’
- (41) a. **Sinu-sino** ang pinagsabih-an *mo*?
 who-who PERF.tell-ACC 2SG(GEN)
 ‘Who all did you tell?’
 b. ***Sinu-sino** (*mo*) ang (*mo*) pinagsabih-an ____ ?
 who-who (2SG(GEN)) (2SG(GEN)) PERF.tell-ACC
 ‘Who all did you tell?’
- (42) a. **Sino** ang naka-laban *niya*?
 who PERF-ABIL.fight 3SG(GEN)
 ‘Who did he/she happen to fight?/Who was she able to fight?’

²⁰The grammatical sentences here are based on naturally occurring examples obtained from the web; the ungrammatical sentences are based on consultation with native speakers. The ungrammaticality judgments are an idealization here, as the reality is that not all speakers were consistent across the board or even as individual speakers. The issue is (partially) addressed in the main text, Section 3.2.

- b. ***Sino** (*niya*) ang (*niya*) nakalaban ____?
 who (3SG(GEN)) (3SG(GEN)) PERF-ABIL.fight
 ‘Who did he/she happen to fight?/Who was she able to fight?’

By contrast, when the *wh*-phrase corresponds to a non-argument (i.e., an adjunct), the second position pronoun generally appear to the immediate right of the initial *wh*-phrase. The examples in (43)-(45) illustrate.

- (43) **Saan** *ako* makaka-kuha ng backpack na (i)to ____?
 where 1.SG.NOM NOM.CONT.ABIL-get GEN backpack LK this
 ‘Where can I get this backpack?’
- (44) **Bakit** *niya* pa-palit-an ang anumang *sinabi* ____ ng awtor?
 why 3SG(GEN) IMPF.CAUSE-change-ACC NOM any.LK said GEN author
 ‘Why would (s)he change anything that the author said? (web)’
- (45) **Hanggang kailan** *ako* kukuha ____ ng payo sa aking
 until.LK when 1SG(NOM) NOM.CONT.take GEN counsel OBL 1SG(OBL).LK
 kaluluwa?
 soul
 ‘How long must I wrestle with my thoughts?’
 (Lit. Until when might I take counsel with my soul?)
 (Bible passssage)

Placement of the pronoun further to the right in these examples leads to (varying degrees of significant degradation of acceptability. Compare the acceptable examples in (43)-(45) above to the unacceptable sentences in (46) below, where the pronoun appears further to the right of the *wh*-phrase (e.g., after the verb).

- (46) a. ??**Bakit** papalitan *niya* ang anumang *sinabi* ____ ng awtor?
 why change 3SG(GEN) NOM any.LK PERF.said GEN author
- b. ***Bakit** papalitan ang anumang *sinabi* *niya* ng awtor?
 why change NOM any.LK PERF.say 3SG(GEN) GEN author
- c. ***Bakit** papalitan ang anumang *sinabi* ____ ng awtor *niya*?
 why change NOM any.LK PERF.say GEN author 3SG(GEN)
 (‘Why would (s)he change anything that the author said?’)

What conclusion do these facts lead us to? According to Aldridge and others, the facts support a ‘bi-furcated’ analysis of interrogative questions into those formed as a P-Cleft (for arguments), and those formed by *wh*-movement to Spec, CP (for adjuncts). Concretely, the P-Cleft analysis represented earlier in (12) is bi-clausal structure (as schematized in (47)), while the structure produced by *wh*-movement is mono-clausal (as schematized in (48)).

(47) *(Pseudo)-Cleft, Bi-Clausal:*
 $[_{CP} WH [_{CP} Op_j ... V ... t_j]]$

(48) *Wh-movement, Mono-Clausal:*
 $[_{CP} WH_j ... V ... t_j]$

Assuming this structural distinction, the distributional facts for pronouns follows. First, the contrast between the (a) and (b) examples of (40)-(42) follows because the placement of the pronoun in the (a) example (i.e., following the verb) is the only second position within the (embedded) clause that contains the 2P pronoun and that the verb is an argument of. Placing the pronoun to the immediate right of the *wh*-phrase, as in the (b) examples, is impossible because that position is external to the clause that the pronoun is an argument of (see (47)). By contrast, the structure of the *Wh*-questions in (43)-(45), being mono-clausal, as schematized in (48), treats the *wh*-phrase rather than the verb as the first element in the clause that contains both and therefore the host for the 2P pronoun.

(49) *Argument Based Wh-Question:*
 $[_{CP} WH (*pro) [_{CP} Op_j ... V (pro) ... t_j]]$

(50) *Adjunct Based Wh-Question:*
 $[_{CP} WH_j (pro) ... V ... (*pro) t_j]$

While this account of the distribution of 2P pronouns in interrogative clauses is eloquent, I will now present new facts below that cast some doubt on the empirical generalization that it serves to motivate. As I hope to demonstrate, these facts weaken the argument for a ‘bi-furcated’ analysis of *wh*-questions or (depending on ones perspective) reduce it straw alltogether.

3.1.2 New Evidence The analysis of 2P pronoun placement in interrogatives, which makes crucial appeal to the bi-clausal nature of a P-Cleft structure, can be stated as a plainly falsifiable prediction.

(51) In a structure of the form:
 $[_{D1} ... [_{D2} V X Y Z]]$
 If there is a 2P clitic that is an argument or otherwise semantically associated with D2, it must surface in D2 and not D1.

This prediction is not always so clearly respected. Consider, first, the example in (52).

(52) At sino **kaya itong isa pang** bibisita sa Eat Bulaga?
 and who so this.LK one stil.LK visit.CONT.ACC LOC Eat Bulaga
 ‘And so who (else) will be visiting Eat Bulaga?’ (web)

In Tagalog, elements like *kaya itong isa pa* are clitics sub-classified as ‘particles’ that may be roughly translated as ‘able’, ‘this one’, and ‘still’, respectively). They differ from pronominal (2P) clitics in that they do not function as arguments, and they typically appear before pronominal clitics.²¹ Relevant for us is that these particles (as clitics) typically appear within a domain, D, which is associated with the clause that the particle makes a semantic

²¹See Anderson (2005) for additional details.

contribution to.²² In other words, we can consider <**kaya itong isa pa**> as one (possibly two) 2P clitics—in other words, let us call this cluster of clitics, CL_{Cl} , consisting of $=kaya=itong=isa=pa$.

Now, according to the pseudo-cleft analysis for interrogatives in Tagalog, example (52) would have to result from selecting D1 as the domain for position CL_{Cl} , as shown in (53).

(53) $[_{D1} [WH] = [CL_{Cl}] \emptyset_{COP} [_{D2} V X Y Z]]$

The structure in (53) is unproblematic, as long as it is the case that each particle-clitic that is a member of the set CL_{Cl} is semantically associated with D1 and not D2. This, regrettably, is hard to prove or disprove, but a few simpler examples involving only a single (unclustered) clitic-particle may help. Consider the following examples.²³

- (54) a. Sino_j **palang** naka-tawag _____j sa oras?
 who PART.LK happen.to-call OBL time
 ‘Who, to my surprise, happened to call on time?’
 b. Ano_j **sanang** gusto mo sa gaw-in _____j?
 what PART.LK want 2SG OBL to.do-ACC
 ‘What do you wish to do?’
 c. Sino_j **kayang** makikinig sa sinasabi mo _____j?
 who PART.LK listen.INC.ACC OBL say.ACC 2SG
 ‘Who would listen to what you say?’
 (Job, Tagalog Bible)
 d. Ano_j **nanamang** nangyayari sayo _____j?
 what again.LK IMPERF(NOM)go-on with.you
 ‘What is still going on with you?’
 e. Sino_j **bang** n-agpakawala sa mga Marites na to _____j?
 what LK.Q PERF(NOM).let-go OBL PL Maries LK those
 What let those Marites go?

In the examples in (54), the 2P clitics are particles that express certain moods such as surprise ($=pala$), desire ($=sana$), continuous ($=nanaman$), and question-force ($=ba$). Since they express *mood/force*, I will assume that they are represented as auxiliaries associated with the category I (=of IP) (or rather some projection – e.g., MoodP – which may be above or below I, but crucially above the vP). Currently, I see no convincing argument that the semantic contribution of these particles is made in the main clause predicate (which, according to a P-Cleft analysis, contains only a (vacuous) copular verb plus the *wh*-phrase as a predicate) rather than to the embedded VP predicate (e.g., ‘call on time’, ‘(want) to do’, ‘listen to’). In other words, for the position of 2P particle-clitics like those in (54),

²²If there are multiple 2P pronouns, they are ordered by their own set of principles, as discussed in Anderson (2005) and Kaufman (2010:Chapter 3, 5). I use the term ‘clitic cluster’ in the sense of Nespor & Vogel (1986). However, I use this term as a descriptive term only, and make no theoretical commitment to it as real prosodic category (see Vogel (2009) for recent discussion).

²³What is glossed as the linker here is more ieliy C[+wh].

the structure of the interrogative questions behaves as if they are mono-clausal rather than bi-clausal, contra the prediction stated in (51).

Evidently, it is not just 2P particles like those in (54) that may surface higher than expected with respect to (51). 2P pronouns that function as arguments of the main verb, it appears, may also surface in an unexpectedly higher position than what is predicted by (51). Consider the following attested examples.

- (55) a. Ano_j **niyang** ginagawa _____j at hindi man lang sila
 what 3SG(GEN) do.INC.ACC and not any just 3PL(NOM)
 kinakamusta?
 say.hello.INC.ACC
 ‘What is he doing that he can’t even say “hello”?’ (web)
- b. May kung sino_j **siyang** tinawag-an _____j sa telepono.
 exist KUNG what 3SG(NOM).LK call-ACC OBL telephone
 ‘Someone called him on the phone.’ (web)
- c. Sino_j **niyang** bibisita _____j bukas?
 who 3SG(GEN).LK visit.CONT.ACC tomorrow
 ‘Who is he visiting tomorrow?’ (web)

In the examples above, the pronoun (in bold) is plainly in its correct position as long as there is no clause boundary separating the *wh*-phrase from the remainder of the clause including the verb. Since the examples in (55) involve an argument, they should be associated with a bi-clausal P-Cleft structure that entails a CP clause boundary roughly at the verb. The 2P pronoun ought therefore to be placed immediately after the verb, contrary to the observed facts.²⁴

Of course, the existence of examples that violate (51) do not definitively prove that (argument-based) interrogatives are mono-clausal or bi-clausal. If anything, they only demonstrate some inconclusiveness when it comes to drawing conclusions based on a relatively stable paradigm (examples (38-46)). Looking beyond this simple paradigm casts doubt on the strength of using the distribution of 2P elements as diagnostic of syntactic structure. At this point, then, what would improve the argument reviewed here is two things: First, independent evidence for a mono-clausal structure for (argument-based) interrogatives; and — second — a plausible explanation for the mixed results relating to the distribution of 2P clitics discussed here. We take up these two tasks in the next section.

3.2 Modal Placement

In his work on the structure of interrogatives in Malagasy, Potsdam (2006, 2007, 2009) devotes much attention to arguing that (all) interrogative questions in Malagasy have a bi-clausal structure (specifically, a P-Cleft) analysis. To make the case, Potsdam focusses on the distribution of elements that are associated with the function head, I(nfl). Specifi-

²⁴I have glossed the second position particles as PART+LINKER. Given the analysis of *wh*-questions involving *wh*-movement to Spec, CP — the linker element here might just as well be glossed as a complementizer — specifically, C[wh].

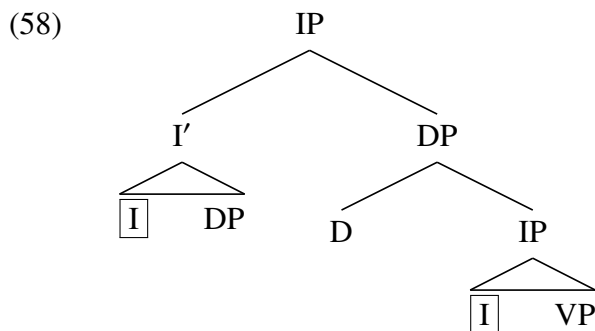
cally, he notes that there are a variety of elements in Malagasy that appear to be merged to the left of the predicate phrase, in a position that he identifies as Infl.²⁵ These include the Malagasy elements *tokony* ('should'), an emphatic element *tena* ('indeed'), as well as the future-marking element *ho*. These elements precede [+V] predicates in standard VOS clauses, and also precede *wh*-phrases in *wh*-questions. Potsdam's examples illustrating this pattern for the element *toknoy* ('should') are given in (56).

- (56) a. **Tokony** hamangy an-dRabe Rasoa.
 should visit.ACT ACC-Rabe Rasoa
 'Rasoa should visit Rabe.'
 b. **Tokony** iza no hamangy an-dRabe Rasoa?
 should who PRT visit.ACT ACC-Rabe Rasoa
 'Who should visit Rabe?'
 (Potsdam 2006, 2165-2166)

As Potsdam notes, it is also possible for *tokony* to appear after the particle *no* but before the remainder of the clause which contains the main verb. This word order is illustrated in example (57).

- (57) Iza no **tokony** hamangy an-dRabe Rasoa?
 who PRT should visit.ACT ACC-Rabe Rasoa
 'Who should visit Rabe?'
 (Potsdam 2006, 2167; compare with ([ex]))

For Potsdam, the equivalent grammaticality of the forms in (56) and (57) follows from two main assertions: First, and foremost, *wh*-question in Malagasy have a P-Cleft structure (sketched schematically below as (58)). Second, words like *tokony* are a morphological realization of the head IP (=I). Given these two assumptions, there are two logical positions for words like *tokony* to appear in based on the cleft-structure, as illustrated by the boxed positions in the structure in (58).



²⁵For Potsdam's argument, and for the argument I will make for Tagalog, the identification of these elements as Infl is not crucial. Instead, it is only important that these elements are generally merged to the (immediate) left of a predicate or predicate phrase. In fact, Paul & Potsdam (2008), and Potsdam (2007) seem to take this later, more neutral view.

Crucially, comparison of the facts in Malagasy with those in Tagalog would appear to point to a very different conclusion. Sabbagh (2014) (see also Kroeger 1993:Chapter 6) observes that Tagalog also has a set of elements that must, in general, precede a [+V] predicate in simple sentences. These include the elements *dapat* ('must'), *baka* ('might'), and *maaari* ('can') (the latter specifically seems to be roughly equivalent to *tokony* in Malagasy). For our purposes, these elements seem to function as in Malagasy as modals and therefore might reasonably be assigned to the category I in Tagalog as well. Consider the following examples.

- (59) a. **Dapat** tupar-in ni Mark ang pangako niya sa taong
must INF.KEEP-AGR(TH) GEN Mark NOM promise 3SG(GEN) OBL person.LK
iyon
that
'Mark must keep his promise to that person.'
- b. **Dapat ko-ng** tupar-in ang aking pangako sa taong
must 1SG(GEN)-LK INF.KEEP-ACC NOM 1SG(GEN).LK promise OBL person.LK
iyon.
that
'I must keep my promise to that person.'
- (60) a. **Baka bumili** si Juan ng bagong suit.
might AF.INF.buy NOM Juan GEN new.LK suit
'Juan might buy a new suit.'
- b. **Baka ko-ng** bayar-an ang aking respeto sa kanya ...
might 1SG(GEN)-LK INF.pay-ACC NOM my respect OBL him
'I might pay my respects to him...'
(*Paggising Sa Buddhahood: Awakening into Buddhahood in Filipino*, by Nam H Nguyen)

In contrast to Malagasy's *tokony*, *dapat*, *baka*, and *maaari* in Tagalog must appear before the [+V] predicate. The reverse order is ungrammatical, as the examples in (61) demonstrate.

- (61) a. *Tupar-in **dapat** ni Mark ang pangako niya sa taong iyon
INF.KEEP-ACC must GEN Mark s promise 3SG(GEN) OBL person.LK that
'Mark must keep his promise to that person.'
- b. *Bumili **baka** si Juan ng bagong suit.
AF.INF.buy might s Juan GEN new.LK suit
'Juan might buy a new suit.'

Keeping the last point in mind, note that in Tagalog *wh*-questions, the *wh*-phrase must occur (directly) before the pre-predicate elements *dapat*, *baka*, and *maaari*. Consider the examples in (62), where we observe the order: WH > PARTICLE > MODAL > V.

- (62) a. **Sino** ang [**dapat** m-agbayad sa date]?
 who should NOM-INF-PAY OBL date
 ‘Who should pay for the date?’ (web)
- b. ***Dapat sino** ang magbayad sa date]?
 should who pay for date

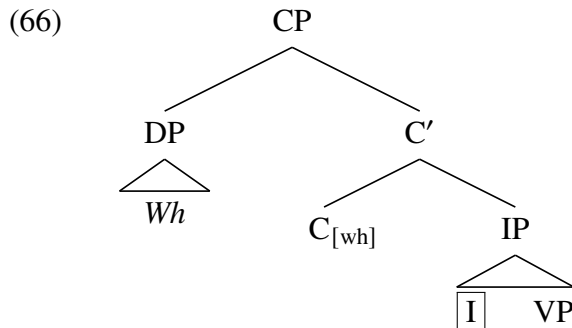
As an additional example, consider the examples in (63), involving the element *maaari* (‘can’). The distribution of *maaari* appears to be identical to *dapat* and *baka* – it must occur before the *wh*-phrase but before the main verb:

- (63) a. **Sino-sino** ang [**maaring** m-aging sapatero]?
 who-who s can.LK NOM-INF.become shoemaker
 ‘Who can become a shoemaker?’
- b. ***Maaaring sino-sino** ang [m-aging sapatero]?
 can.LK who-who s NOM-INF-become shoemaker
 (‘Who can become a shoemaker?’)

These facts, in particular those in (61) and the (b) examples of (62)-(63), contrast with the facts documented for Malagasy by Potsdam. Concretely, the difference between Malagasy and Tagalog may be compared and summarized as follows (PART corresponds to *ang* in Tagalog, *no* in Malagasy).

- | | |
|--|--|
| <p>(64) <i>Malagasy</i>:</p> <p>a. WH > PART > MODAL</p> <p>b. MODAL > WH > PART</p> | <p>(65) <i>Tagalog</i>:</p> <p>a. WH > PART > MODAL</p> <p>b. *MODAL > WH > PART</p> |
|--|--|

Crucially, if we apply Potsdam’s reasoning about Malagasy to Tagalog, the absence of the word order in (65b) leads us to conclude that *wh*-questions in Tagalog are mono-clausal. Under a mono-clausal analysis, there can be only one Infl position in the clause, and this Infl position follows but cannot precede the element *ang*, analyzed as a complementizer (see Section 2.1). This is illustrate in (66).



The word order in (65b) is ungrammatical in Tagalog given this structure because there is only one Infl position *wh*-phrase, and it occurs to the right of the *wh*-phrase but to the left

of the main verb. This result follows if (i) interrogative questions are mono-clausal; and (ii) *wh*-phrases in Tagalog undergo *wh*-movement.

If the reasoning here is sound, then we have another confirmation for the main thesis of this paper: Interrogative questions in Tagalog (whether argument-based or adjunct-based) are never *obligatorily* bi-clausal (i.e., they do not *necessarily* have a P-Cleft structure).

Section 3.2 2P Pronouns: *Redux*

Before moving on, let us briefly circle back to the issue of P2 pronouns (see Section 3.1), focussing mainly on the apparent variable placement of the P2 pronouns in (argument) *wh*-questions. Recall that the commonly cited fact is that a 2P pronoun must occur after the ‘main’ verb rather than (immediately) after the *wh*-phrase but before the main verb. Example (41), repeated below, illustrates this.

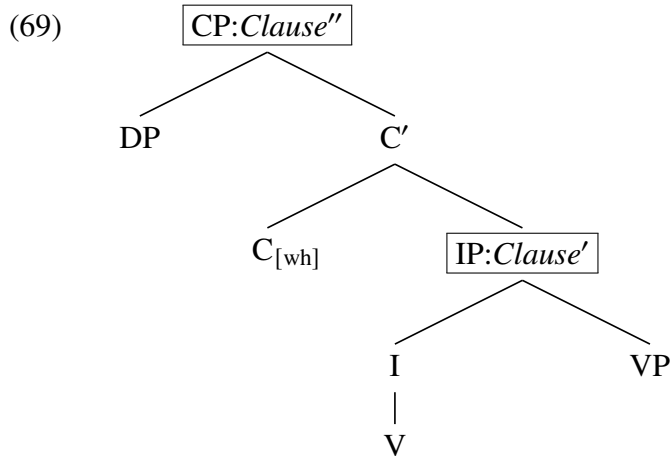
- (67) a. **Sino** ang naka-laban *niya*?
 who PERF-ABIL.-fight 3SG(GEN)
 ‘Who did he/she happen to fight?/Who was she able to fight?’
 b. ***Sino** (*niya*) ang (*niya*) naka-laban ____?
 who (3SG(GEN)) (3SG(GEN)) PERF-PERF-ABIL.-fight
 ‘Who did he/she happen to fight?/Who was she able to fight?’

As noted, however, the facts are potentially more complicated. As the examples in (54)-(55) revealed, there do appear to be attested examples exhibiting the word order: *Wh* > 2P > V (see also, footnote 20). How can we make sense of these (apparently) conflicting data? The hypothesis I would like to put forward here concerns the nature of Kroeger’s (1993) rule in (37), repeated as (68).

- (68) *Placement of Clitics in Tagalog (descriptive)*
 Clitics occur immediately after the first lexical or phrasal daughter of the clause (=IP/CP).

Concretely, I propose that the nature of the problem consists in the vagueness in (68) concerning what counts as the clause: IP or CP. Specifically, if we assume that the ‘clause’ is equated with IP, then the domain of placement 2P clitics will be IP. Given this assumption, 2P pronouns would be expected to (immediately) follow the (main) verb, as – in general – it will be the first element that may serve as a host for the clitic.²⁶ Since the *wh*-phrase occupies [Spec, CP], it is outside of this domain for clitic placement and would therefore be a suitable host. On the other hand, if CP is taken to be the relevant category corresponding to the clause. Then, it will be the *wh*-phrase rather than the main verb that will be a suitable host of the 2P pronoun. The figure in (69) illustrates this proposal (the boxed nodes represent the potential “Clauses” for determining the placement of the 2P clitic).

²⁶As Kroeger 1993, and Sabbagh 2004 both point out, there may be IP-initial adjuncts within IP that may also serve as the host for a P2 Clitic within this domain.



If this proposal seems reasonable enough, the remaining question concerns variability in ‘choice’ between whether it is IP or CP that is taken to be the clause. At the present moment, I can only offer some speculations on the matter. Suppose, first of all, that we take IP rather than CP to be the clause as the *default* or *unmarked* case (hence, the 2P clitics will typically appear in second position within IP). This may, in turn, follow naturally from the fact that – being Verb-initial – there will reliably be a host (=the verb) for a 2P clitic. The CP, by comparison, will contain a host of the a 2P clitic only if there is motivation of it to host a phrase in its specifier (e.g., if there is a C[+wh] that requires a specifier). Otherwise, the domain between CP and IP may lack a consistently present element for the 2P clitic to enjoin to. This is not to say that the choice of IP or CP as the clause is fixed, just that (perhaps) only option offers a more reliable host for the 2P clitic, and therefor represents the unmarked case. Naturally, further study and consideration of the issue is needed here.

4 Possessor Raising

In this section, I present a new argument that *wh*-questions in Tagalog are derived by *wh*-movement (as opposed to a P-Cleft analysis). The argument is based on a process of *Possessor Raising* in which a [+wh]-pronoun that functions as the possessor of a DP must precede the [-wh]-possessum.²⁷ As I intend to show, this word order is an instance of (obligatory) pied-piping, which – to my knowledge – is found only in languages that derive their interrogative questions via *wh*-movement.

5.1 Non-Pronominal Possessors

Non-pronominal possessors follow their nominal head (=the possessum) in Tagalog, as demonstrated by the following examples.

²⁷See Aissen 1996; Deal 2017; among many others. In recent work, Brodtkin (2020) makes a similar argument for *wh*-movement based on prepositions stranding in Mandarin.

- (70) Ang mga laruan ng bata
 NOM PL toy GEN child
 ‘children’s toys’
 (English, 481, entry for *entresuwelo*)
- (71) Ang mga gunita ng isang matanda
 NOM PL recollection GEN one.LK old
 ‘An old man’s reminiscences’
 (English 552, entry for *gunita*)
- (72) Labis na ginusto ni Bell [ang [isang bata ni Grant]], at
 very.much LK IPERF.ACC.want GEN Bell NOM a.LK child GEN Grant, and
 n-abuntis siya noong tagsibol ng 1918.
 PERF.ACC.became.pregnant 3SG(SUBJ) when.LK spring GEN 1918
 ‘Bell desperately wanted a child from Grant, and became pregnant in the spring of 1918.’
 (web)

In contrast to languages like Hungarian (see Szabolci 1984) and English, non-pronominal possessors cannot occur before the possessum.²⁸ The ungrammatical expressions in (73) illustrate this fact.

- (73) a. *(CASE) bata mga lauran
 child PL toy
 (‘children’s toys’)
 (Cf. (43))
- b. *(CASE) Grant isa-ng bata
 Grant one-LK child
 (‘Grant’s child’)
 (Cf. (45))

5.2 Pronominal Possessors

Pronominal and non-interrogative possessors in Tagalog may either precede or follow the possessum, as examples (74)-(75) illustrate. Note that when appearing *post-nominally*, the possessor is realized in the genitive case. By contrast, when the possessive pronoun occurs before the possessum, it is expressed in the oblique case. Consider the following examples.

- (74) *Pronominal & Postnominal Possessors, Genitive Case:*
- a. [sa [kamay **ko**]]
 OBL hand 1SG(GEN)
 ‘from my hand’
 (English, 462, entry for *dulay*)

²⁸I place CASE in parentheses here to indicate that the examples are ungrammatical regardless of the case-form associated with the possessor.

- b. [ang [aklat **mo**]] sa Matematika
NOM book 2SG(GEN) OBL mathematics
'your math book'
- c. ...nakita ko [ang [kuwarta **nila**]], bukas.
saw 1SG(GEN) NOM room 3PL(GEN) open
'I saw their room, it was open.'

(75) *Pronominal & Pre-nominal Possessors, Oblique Case:*

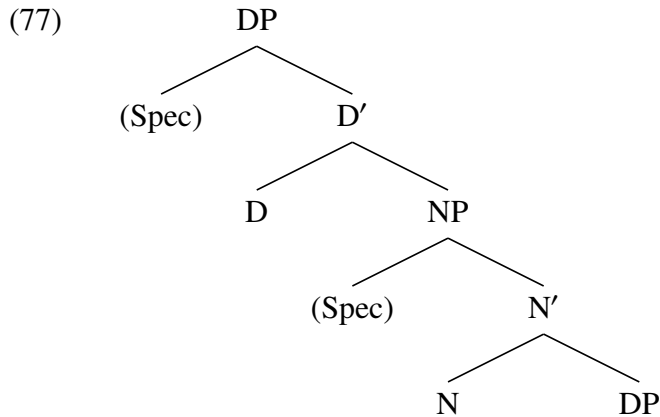
- a. sa abot [ng [**aki-ng** gunita]]
OBL within GEN 1SG(OBL)-LK recollection
'within my recollection'
(English, 552, entry for *gunita*)
- b. [sa [**iyon-ng** kilos]]
OBL 2SG(OBL)-LK deportment
'in your deportment'
(English, 332, entry for *kilos*)
- c. [ang [**kanya-ng** pasasalamat]]
NOM 3.SG(OBL)-LK thanks
'her thanks'
(English, 239, entry for *bulong*)
- d. ang lahat [ng [**kanila-ng** aawitin]] sa palatuntunan
NOM all GEN 3.PL(OBL)-LK song OBL program
'all of their programs for the program' (English, 480, entry for *ensayado*)

While there is much work to be done on the shape of DP's in Tagalog, what little work has been carried out reveals at least the (crude) distribution of elements and their order as schematized in (76) (see Himmelmann 2016).

(76) [Case + (Q, Dem) + PL + N]

Assuming (at least in general) that left-to-right order translates into a linear order based on C-command (Kayne 1994), DP's can be imagined to have the rough structure shown in (77). In this structure, there is a DP, which immediately dominates a NP. Assume for now that D can be realized as Number, a Quantifier, or an Ordinal.²⁹

²⁹The structure for DP proposed here seems to be broadly consistent with cross-linguistic comparison (see, e.g., Roberts (2017) and references therein). That said, a more extensive exploration of noun phrases in Tagalog is needed to determine whether there should be additional functional projections within the DP, so as to differentiate elements like *mga* (expression of Number); Quantifiers (e.g., *ilan*); and Ordinals (e.g., *bawa't* ('every')). Note, to simplify the exposition, I will also ignore the case particle and the question of how, exactly, it might be represented syntactically. Himmelmann (2016) suggests that it be represented as a KP that dominates DP (see also, Travis (date)). There are many possibilities here, but they are beyond the scope of the current study.



If this basic picture of the structure of the DP is correct, we can observe that the placement of pre-nominal possessors is rather high in the overall structure. For instance, pre-nominal possessors in their oblique form may precede the optional plural morpheme *mga* (78a), quantifiers (78b-c), and demonstratives (78d-e).

- (78)
- a. ang **kanya-ng** mga obra
NOM 3.SG(OBL)-LK PL work
'his works'
 - b. Bumabagal [ang [[**kanya-ng** bawa't pagkilos]].
NOM.IMPERF.slows-downs NOM 3.SG(OBL)-LK every action
'His every action slows (himself) down.' (web)
 - c. Saan pumunta sina Emilio Aguinaldo at [ang [**kanya-ng**
where NOM.PERF.go NOM.PL E. A. and NOM 3.SG(OBL)-LK
ila-ng piling kasamahan]]?
some-LK select-LK colleague
'Where did Emilio Aguinaldo and his few select colleagues go?' (web)
 - d. Hindi sa [**aki-ng** ito-ng damit na 'to].
not OBL 1SG(OBL)-LK this-LK dress LK this
'(this is) not my dress.'
 - e. Super cute naman talaga [ng [**aking** inaanak na ito]]!
super cute also really GEN 1SG(OBL).LK god-child LK this
'This god-child of mine is really super cut.'

Although some variation in word order is allowed (e.g., the possessor may also follow *mga* ('plural') and at least some of the quantifiers), the examples in (78) should be sufficient to make the case that the oblique pre-nominal possessors are relatively high within the overall structure of the DP — perhaps occupying the highest position (Spec, DP) in their DP's. I will assume this conclusion in what follows.

5.1 Possessives in Interrogatives: Obligatory Pied-Piping

Observe next that If the possessor of a DP is a *wh*-pronoun, then it *must* be expressed pre-nominally, as in examples like (79)-(81). In the examples below, it can be observed that the

wh-phrase is expressed in the oblique case (see Section 5.2 above).

- (79) [DP [DP **Kanino-ng**] **aso**]_j ang kumagat _____j sa iyo?
 who.OBL-LK child NOM bit OBL you
 ‘Whose dog bit you?’
- (80) [DP **Kanino-ng aklat**]_j ang pipili-in mo _____j?
 who.OBL-LK book NOM choose 2SG(GEN)?
 ‘Whose book will you choose?’
- (81) [DP **Kanino-ng malakas na boses**]_j ang n-arinig ni Manoka _____j
 who.OBL-LK loud LK voice NOM ACC.PERF-head NS Manoka
 habang siya’y papalapit kumunoy?
 when.LK 3SG approach swamp
 ‘Whose loud voice did Manoka hear when she approached the swamp?’ (web)

Examples like (82)-(83), in which the *wh*-phrase possessor following the nominal possessum, are apparently impossible.

- (82) *[DP (Ang) **aso** (ng) **nino**]_j ang kumagat _____j sa iyo?
 s dog GEN who.GEN s NOM.PERF.bit OBL you
 (‘The/a dog of whom bit you?’)
- (83) *[DP (Ang) **aklat** (ng) **nino**]_j ang pipiliin mo _____j?
 s book GEN who.GEN s bit OBL you
 (‘The/a book of whom did you choose?’)

In short, pronominal possessor must occur before its possessum when the possessum is [+wh].

As it happens, roughly this same exact pattern is documented for other languages as well. For example, in (at least) two Mayan languages—Tzotzil (Aissen 1996) and Chol (Coon 2009)—non-pronominal possessive phrases tend to occur post-nominally. *Wh*-phrases that function as possessors can undergo *Possessor Raising*, but where they cannot — a possessor *wh*-phrase must first undergo movement to the left edge of a DP, then pied-pipe the larger containing DP from that position. requiring pied-piping. Consider the following examples, from Tzotzil.

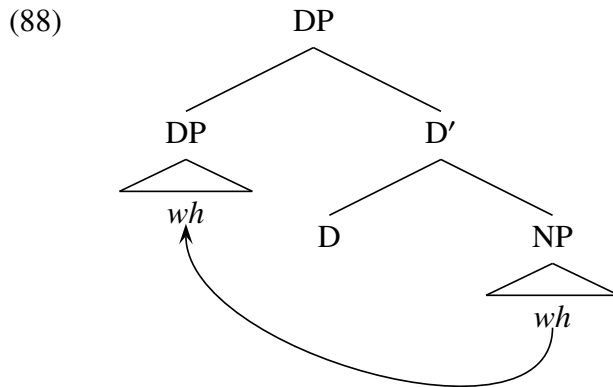
- (84) a. s-p’in li Maruch-e
 A3-pot the Maruch-ENC
 ‘Maruch’s pot’
 b. *Maruch s-p’in
 Maruch A3-pot
- (85) a. [Buch’u x-ch’amal]₁ i-cham ____₁?
 who A3-child CP-died
 ‘Whose child died?’

- b. *[X-ch'amal buch'u]₁ i-cham ____₁?
 A3-child who CP-died
 (Whose child died?)

Tagalog seems to follow the exact same pattern as Tzotzil and Chol, at least with respect to *wh*-phrases and pied-piping. First, a *wh*-phrase as possessor, in general, may not be extracted from its DP unless a special form of the verb with the suffix *-an* is used (Kroeger 1993:32-33, and Section 5.8 below) as demonstrated by the following examples.³⁰

- (86) *Sino ang *ginupit* mo [ang buhok ____]?
 who cut.ACC.PERF.cut 2SG(GEN) S hair
 “Whose hair did you cut?”
- (87) Sino ang *ginupit-an* mo [ng buhok ____]?
 who cut.ACC.PERF.cut-APPL 2SG(GEN) NS hair
 “Whose hair did you cut?”

However, in other contexts, a *wh*-phrase possessor moves to the left-edge of its containing DP and then obligatorily pied-pipes the rests of the phrase, as in the grammatical examples like (79)-(81). In other words, I will assume that the derivation of interrogative structures like these involve a step in their derivation shown in (88), in which the *wh*-phrase originates in a low position within the DP (e.g., as complement to the N) but then subsequently undergoes movement to the highest (Spec, DP) position.



If this is correct, in its essentials, the question — naturally — is why the step in (88) in the derivation of interrogative questions in (79)-(81) is required (i.e., why are examples like (82)-(83) ungrammatical)? In the next subsection, I proposed an answer to this question based on Aissen’s analysis of pied-piping in Tzotzil.

³⁰In Tzotzil, examples that appear to involve possessor are permitted only for subjects of unaccusative, or objects of transitives. See Aissen 1993, footnote 7 for further discussion. For convenience, I gloss the suffix *-an* in (92) as an APPLICATIVE morpheme, intended to indicate the general idea that the possessor must first become an argument of the verb (i.e., a direct object) before it can ascend any higher — i.e., promoted to subject. This is a very understudied aspect of Tagalog syntax, so these remarks should be considered tentative.

5.2.1. *Pied-Piping in Tzotzil and Tagalog* Aissen's analysis of obligatory pied-piping with *wh*-possessive pronouns (as in the below examples, repeated from above) involves two main theoretical assumptions.

- (89) a. [Buch'u x-ch'amal]_j i-cham _____j?
 who A3-child CP-died
 "Whose child died?"
 b. *[X-ch'amal buch'u]_j i-cham _____j?
 A3-child who CP-died
 (Whose child died?)

First, Aissen assumes a version of the *Wh*-Criterion defined as in (90) (see, e.g., Cinque 1990; Lasnik and Saito 1992; Rizzi 1997):³¹

- (90) *Wh-Criterion for Tzotzil* (Aissen 1993, pp. 453):
 a. C[+wh] must Agree with a [+wh] Phrase;
 b. A [+wh] Phrase must Agree with C[+wh] (to be interpreted as an interrogative).

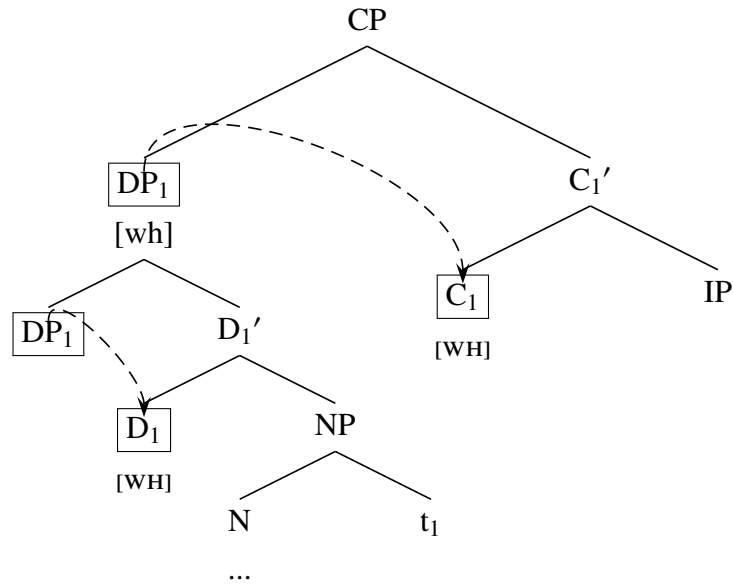
Second, Aissen assumes that the configurations related to satisfying the *Wh*-Criterion are met under two structural conditions: (i) a Specifier-Head relationship between the *wh*-phrase and C; and/or (ii) a Specifier-Head relationship between *wh*-phrase and C that is mediated via Spec-Head agreement within the DP³² (Aissen, 1996: 453).³³ Applying these assumptions to Tagalog, we can account for the contrast between grammatical Tagalog examples like (79)-(81) and ungrammatical ones in (82)-(83). Concretely, if we assume that *wh*-phrases *must* be fronted to Spec, CP, then the *wh*-criterion in (90) will be satisfied only if the interrogative-pronoun has first fronted to Spec, DP, where it may agree with the D that is contained within the larger DP containing the *wh*-phrase. This is illustrated in (91).

³¹I leave it for a future exercise to see how Aissen's analysis might be developed within more contemporaneous approaches to Agree (Chomsky 2000, 2001), and much sub-sequent work by others (Deal, Preminger, etc.). To be clear on the issue, it is my understanding that this obligatory fronting+pied-piping has only been observed for languages with *wh*-movement. It is not observed in *wh-in-situ* languages, for example; nor is it observed in P-Cleft structures where these might exist alongside interrogative questions formed by *wh*-movement. This, though, is an empirical claim rather than a theoretical claim and therefore falsifiable by the more learned-reader.

³²This allows the *wh*-possessor to propagate its [+wh] feature to the head and maximal projection, DP, or the larger DP.

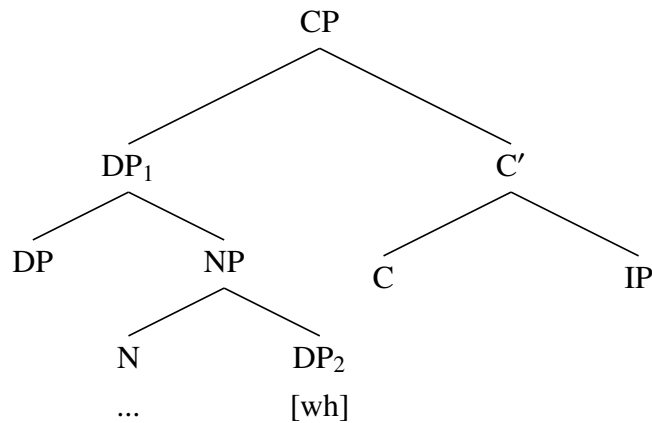
³³Aissen (1996) further assumes *transitivity* of Agreement (if A agrees with B, and B agrees with C, then A agrees with C) (Rizzi 1990, Chung 1991, 1998). I believe this assumption of transitivity is captured by the second condition named above, regarding the relationship between a head and its projection.

(91)



Two details of this derivation are crucial here: (i) Fronting of the possessor *wh*-phrase to the left periphery of the containing DP; and (ii) fronting of the larger DP containing the (possessor) *wh*-phrase to Spec, CP. Most crucial here is the ungrammaticality of examples like (82)-(83). The ungrammaticality of these examples involves a derivation where the DP containing the (*wh*-)possessor has been fronted to Spec, CP, but there has been no movement of the possessor – i.e., the structure/derivation in (92).

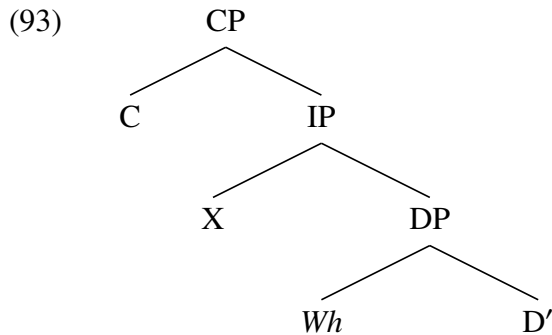
(92)



According to Aissen's analysis, the representation in (92) is ruled out because the unfronted *wh*-phrase (=DP₂) cannot project its [+wh] feature to DP₁. As a consequence, DP₁ cannot agree with C[+wh], which fatally violates the *wh*-Criterion. This accounts for the ungrammaticality of examples like (82)-(83) in Tagalog and their associated examples in Tzotzil.

The final crucial case to consider is a derivation in which the *wh*-phrase possessor (=DP₂) is moved with its containing DP (=DP₁), but this DP is not subsequently fronted

to Spec, CP. This derivation is represented schematically by the structure in (93).³⁴ Crucial to Aissen's analysis is that (obligatorily) leftward movement of a *wh*-possessor to the left edge of its containing DP is inextricably linked to movement of the larger containing DP (to Spec, CP). Hence, obligatory pied-piping is, for Aissen, should be found only in a language that forms its *wh*-questions by *wh*-movement and not through a P-Cleft syntax.



In this structure, the DP contains a fronted *wh*-possessor, meaning that its mother DP will inherit the [+wh] of this *wh*-phrase. However, even with this DP-internal *wh*-movement, the *Wh*-Criterion is violated by the structure in (93) because DP₂, even with its inherited [wh]-feature, is not in the appropriate Specifier-head relationship required for satisfaction of the *wh*-Criterion. In short, Aissen's analysis derives the following result: DP-internal movement of a *wh*-possessor is necessary to feed movement of a *wh*-phrase to Spec, CP, which satisfies the *Wh*-Criterion.

4.2 Interim Summary

Summarizing the discussion, the crucial point is that obligatory possessor raising internal to DP and obligatory pied-piping with *wh*-possessors are not only intertwined, but the phenomenon itself seems to be a distinguishing property of languages with *wh*-movement. In other words, all of the languages that exhibit this kind of obligatory pied-piping also form *wh*-questions via *wh*-movement. Furthermore, it has been observed that P-Cleft structures, in general, do not permit pied-piping. Consider the P-Cleft sentences in (94) from English. Examples (94b), which involves pied-piping in ungrammatical in comparison to (94a) which does not.

- (94)
- a. Who Sally talked to was the airline pilot.
 - b. *To whom Sally talked was the airline pilot.

If the connection between obligatory pied-piping is, indeed, a symptom of *wh*-movement — as seems to be the case — then it follows based on the evidence that Tagalog forms its *wh*-question via *wh*-movement. The primary way that Tagalog forms its *wh*-questions does not, in other words, involve P-Cleft structure as has so often been assumed. It also follows that a

³⁴This representation attempts to be agnostic with respect to the internal structure of IP, and – in particular – whether the *wh*-phrase is in-situ (=unmoved) in an argument or in predicate position as it would be under a P-Cleft analysis.

P-Cleft structure for *wh*-questions, as a primary means for forming interrogative questions may not be the default case for (Western) Austronesian languages, as if often claimed.

5 Final Remarks and Replies

5.1 Adger & Ramchand (2005)

Adger & Ramchand (2005) argue that *wh*-questions in Gaelic (Celtic, related to Irish) take the form of a P-Cleft.

- (95) Dè a' chraobh a bha thu a'geàrradh?
 which the children C-REL be-PAST you cutting
 'Which tree were you cutting?'
 (Adger & Ramchand 2005: pp. 169, exx. (32))
- (96) Copula [*wh*-phrase] [relative clause]
 Ø Dé a' charoabh C-REL be-PAST you cutting

While it is not my intention here to refute their analysis for Gaelic, I scrutinize some of their arguments to determine the extent to which their arguments might extend to Tagalog. I conclude that they do not. I then consider some remaining issues and then offer some concluding remarks to this study.

5.1.1 Non-Identity Effects One of Adger & Ramchand's arguments for a P-Cleft-analysis of *wh*-questions in Gaelic is based on the contrast between (97) and (98).

- (97) Dè a' chraobh a bha thu a'geàrradh
 which the tree-NOM C-REL be-PAST you cutting
 'Which tree were you cutting?'
- (98) *Dè na craobhe a bha thu a'geàrradh
 which the tree-GEN C-REL be-PAST you cutting
 ('Which tree were you cutting?')
 (Adger & Ramchand 2005: pp.169, exx. (31), (31))

The ungrammaticality of (98), according to A&R is surprising (problematic) because the *wh*-phrase must surface in the nominative case rather than the genitive form, which is the (idiosyncratic) case-form that the verb *a'gearradh* ('cut') would normally assign to its object. Instead, the *wh*-phrase must appear in the nominative case, as in the grammatical sentence (97). This fact, according to A&R, represent an instance of *Case Mismatch*, and militates against an analysis for *Wh*-questions in Gaelic in which the *wh*-phrase is connected to a trace of the object position of the verb *a'gearradh* (or any position consisting of a gap following the *wh*-phrase). Case mismatch is unproblematic for a P-Cleft analysis because the *wh*-phrase and the gap are not directly connected (i.e., via movement)

At first blush, it would seem that a similar argument might be made for Tagalog. First, the internal argument of a typical transitive verb in Tagalog is assigned accusative/genitive case in the ‘Actor-Voice’. Certain verbs, however, seem to require their internal argument to be expressed in the oblique case. Consider the examples in (99)-(100). The transitive verb *basa* (‘read’) in (99) assigns accusative/genitive to its object as is quite typical. Verbs such as *hilig* (‘love’), however, assign an idiosyncratic oblique case to their object, as shown in (100).

- (99) N-agbabasa ako ng libro.
 NOM.IMPERF-read 1SG.NOM GEN book.
 ‘I read the book.’
- (100) N-ahilig ako sa mga maikling kwento.
 NOM.PERF.love 1SG.NOM OBL PL short.lk shory
 ‘I loved (used to love) short stories.’

Sa-marked nominals may also serve as locative arguments, as shown in (101), but there they will be glossed as LOC in order to distinguish them from the idiosyncratic oblique-oblique marked arguments.

- (101) N-aglagay ako ng mga libro sa desk.
 put 1SG.NOM ACC PL book LOC desk
 ‘I put some books on the desk.’

The *sa*-marked internal argument of sentences like (100) may be questioned, but the *wh*-phrase, as we saw to be the case for Gaelic, must appear in the nominative-form.

- (102) Anong kwento=ng gustuh-an mo ____?
 what.LK story=C PERF.like-APPL 2SG.GEN
 ‘What/which story did you like?’

If the *wh*-phrase surfaces in the oblique case, the result is ungrammatical.

- (103) *Sa anong kwento=ng gustuh-an mo ____?
 OBL what.LK story=C PERF.like-APPL 2SG.GEN
 (‘(to) what story did you like?’)

The ungrammaticality of (103) seems to parallel A&R’s example (98), and therefore might be taken as evidence for a pseudo-cleft analysis of Tagalog *WH*-questions. However, there is another explanation for the contrast between (102) and (103). Concretely, and as previously noted, the verb in Tagalog must bare some kind of affix which has the general property of indicating which argument of the verb functions syntactically as the subject of the clause (i.e., the nominative DP)³⁵. Significantly, Tagalog has a series of *applicative* af-

³⁵There references here go as far back as some of original studies of the language See Rackowski & Richards 2004 for a recent overview

fixes) that allow for non-core-arguments of a verb to be realized as a subject (see, e.g., Rackowski 2002). For instance, a benefactive (typically expressed as an adjunct), may function as the subject if the appropriate *applicative* morpheme is used. The following examples serve to illustrate.

- (104) a. Bumili ako ng bola para sa kanya.
 NOM.PERF.buy 1SG(NOM) GEN ball for OBL 3SG(OBL)
 ‘I bought a ball for him.’
 b. I-bili ko siya ng bola .
 BEN-PERF.buy 1SG(GEN) 3SG(NOM) GEN ball
 ‘I bought him a ball.’

This process of applicativization also allows for the possessor of an (internal) argument to function as the subject, as illustrated by the alternation between examples (105a-b) (see Nie 2019 and references therein for fuller discussion).

- (105) a. In-ayos niya [ang buhok ni Tina].
 ACC.PERF.-arrange 3SG(GEN) NOM hair GEN Maria
 ‘She arranged Tina’s hair.’
 b. In-ayos-an niya ng buhok [si Tina].
 PERF-arrange-LOC 3SG(GEN) GEN hair NOM Tina
 ‘She arranged Tina’s hair.’

Note that sentence (106), where the internal argument’s possessor is the subject but the morphology of the verb is not in the right form. This sentence (and others like it) are completely ungrammatical.

- (106) *In-ayos niya ng buhok [si Tina].
 PERF-arrange-LOC 3SG(GEN) GEN hair NOM Tina
 ‘She arranged Tina’s hair.’

Now, and crucially, $\bar{A}$ -dependencies in Tagalog require an extracted argument to correspond to a subject. In other words, if a phrase is extracted, the verb must bare the morphology that is associated with the subject-hood of that argument.³⁶ Viewed from this perspective, the contrast between (102) and (103) can now be seen as involving an instantiation of this ‘Subject only’ restriction on extraction. There is no case-mismatch of the type described by Adger & Ramchand (2004) for Gaelic, as the contrast between (102)-(103) follows from a (well-documented, well-described) Tagalog specific grammatical constraint.

6.1.2 Reconstruction Effects Another topic that has not been widely discussed (if at all) in connection with the analysis of *wh*-questions is a question about whether or not *wh*-questions in Tagalog exhibit *Reconstruction* effects of the type very familiar to studies on *wh*-movement and $\bar{A}$ -Movement more generally. For instance, as noted in Barss (1986), *wh*-phrases can behave as if they are unmoved for purposes of phenomenon such as reflexive

³⁶This is the ‘Subject Only’ restriction on extraction (references).

binding (Principle A effects) (see also, Sportiche (2017) and references therein for a recent overview of reconstruction effects):

- (107) Which photo of herself₁ does Mary₁ like best ____?

Facts like these have been used to ‘diagnose’ movement (see, e.g., Pesetsky 2013, and the references therein). By this, one is referring to a specific analysis of *wh*-questions like (107) in which the ‘gap’ in examples is filled by a *copy* of its antecedent (Chomsky 1995, 2000, 2001, and references therein). Given this representation for *wh*-movement, one can say simply that Principle A is satisfied in examples like (107) because the movement chain involves identical elements (=copies), the lower of which contains a reflexive that satisfies Principle A in this location (i.e., the tail of the movement-chain). Assuming the soundness of the logic here, an important predication is made for Tagalog: If Tagalog *wh*-questions are analyzed as P-Clefts, there should be no reconstruction effects. Examples like (108) show that this prediction is not born out. *Wh*-questions *do* show reconstruction effects for Principle A.

- (108) Aling larawan ng *kanyang sarili*=ng₁ i-pinita ni Maria ____?
 what.LK picture GEN 3SG.GEN.LK self=LK ACC-paint.PERF GEN Maria?
 ‘Which picture of him/her-self₁ did Maria₁ paint?’

Evidently, even in Gaelic where (root) *wh*-questions have been argued to PC analysis, Principle-A effects are observed (see A&R, pp.; examples). As A&R note, examples like ((111), in Gaelic) would appear pose a potential problem for the P-Cleft analysis that they propose for *Wh*-questions.. However, they also note that reflexives in Gaelic can (always) be used *logophorically*, which – if so – renders the argument based on (111) (in Gaelic, and therefore potentially in Tagalog as well) potentially irrelevant. While the issue of logophoric uses of reflexives remains to be studied for Tagalog, there is evidence that logophoricity is not at play here. In particular, and as noted in Pesetsky (2013, pp. 130), the potential confound of logophoricity goes away when we consider examples like (109).

- (109) Which picture of herself₁/*himself₂ did John₂’s mother₁ like ____ best?

The facts are pretty straightforward here: the reflexive *herself* cannot be bound to *John* because *John*, the possessor of the DP *John’s mother* which does not c-command the position of the gap. In other words, even if there is a copy of the movement element in the gap position, that copy contains a reflexive which will violate Principle A.

- (110) Which picture of herself/*himself did John’s mother like [which picture of x-self] best?

Thought judgments are delicate here, the same observation made for (110) in English can be made for Tagalog as well. In particular, sentence (111) not only seems to be grammatical, it also only has the interpretation whereby the reflexive *kanyang sarili* (‘her/himself’) corefers with the child and not Maria.^{footnote}Non-linguist speakers have the usual

difficulty in judging examples of this level of complexity. Adding to this complication is the fact that there is no gender distinction for the (3rd person) pronouns, which presumably makes rendering a judgement even more difficult.

- (111) Aling larawan ng *kanyang sarili*=ng i-pinita ng anak ni Maria ____?
 what.LK picture GEN 3SG.GEN.LK self=LK paint GEN child GEN Maria
 ‘Which picture of him/her-self_{1/*2} did Maria₂’s child₁ paint?’

In (111), the reflexive can be bound by *anak ni Maria*, but not by *Maria*. This follows from Principle A (assuming reconstruction) of the *wh*-phrase. Crucially, and as a consequence, while example (108) might be dismissed as (a possible instance of) an example of a logophoric use of the reflexive, this would not explain datum like (111) (see Richards (2013) for more discussion of Principle A and Principle C effects for reconstruction in Tagalog).

If further probing of the facts like (111) reveal a consistent pattern, they offer support for the fronting analysis.

In the same spirit of the argument made for Principle A, consider examples (112) in Tagalog.

- (112) Anong aklat ang *binili* ng bawa’t lalaki ____ para kay Juan
 what book C[wh] buy.PERF.ACC gen every boy for OBL Max
 ‘What book did every boy buy for Juan?’

From what I have been able to ascertain, sentence (112) in Tagalog has the same ambiguity as its English counterpart. This ambiguity is related to: (i) a single-question interpretation (May 1985: Chapter 2), according to which (i) there is a (possibly) single book (e.g., Chomsky’s *Aspects*); or (ii) a distributed-question interpretation, according to which every boy read a (possibly) different book (e.g., Mark read *Pride & Prejudice*; Sally read *No Exit*; Lotus read *Tropic of Capricorn*; etc.). The two different LF’s in (113) and (114) offer a (crude) rendering of the LF’s for the *single-Q* and *distributed-Q* interpretations associated with (112), respectively.

- (113) *Single-Q Interpretation:*
 $\exists x. \text{book}(x) \ \& \ \forall(y), \text{WH}(y): \text{girl}(y) \rightarrow y \text{ read } x.$

- (114) *Distributed-Q Interpretation:*
 $\forall(x): \text{girl}(x) \rightarrow \exists(y), \text{WH}(y): \text{book}(y) \ \& \ x \text{ read } y.$

Crucially, deriving the two interpretations involves two distinct positions within the clause – a position where the *wh*-phrase take scope over the quantifier *what book*), and one where it is interpreted in its base-position (below *what book*). A P-Cleft analysis of *wh*-questions like (12) could not, as far as I can tell, derive both interpretations. The two interpretations associated with sentence (12), then, serve as an additional argument for reconstruction in *wh*-questions, and – hence – for a *wh*-movement (i.e., fronting) analysis of them.

5.2 Root and Embedded Clauses

I would like to conclude this section with some final remarks concerning a rather outstanding issue. The issue, is this: For all languages which have been argued to exclusively utilize a P-Cleft strategy in forming its *Wh*-questions, the P-Cleft structure is only (exclusively) used to mark the (widest) scope of the *wh*-phrase. In other words, the P-Cleft structure seems to be available at the root level of the clauses, or in embedded clauses that are [+Q]. Consider the following examples.

- (115) Ano=ng [sinabi ni Maria [CP na binili ni Fred ____ sa
 what=C ACC.PERF.say GEN Maria C ACC.PERF.buy GEN Fred LOC
 tindahan]].
 store
 ‘What did Maria say that Juan bought at the store.’
- (116) [In-iisip ko [CP kung sino ang hinihintay ni Maria
 ACC.IMPERF.wonder 1SG.GEN C who C IMPERF.OBL.wait-for GEN Maria
 ____]].

‘I wonder who Maria is waiting for.’

In example (115), the *wh*-phrase has matrix scope and C₁ is either C_[WH] or D under the P-Cleft analysis). The embedded clauses here, however, is introduced by the complementizer *na*, which is the complementizer that introduces [-Q] embedded clauses.³⁷ In example (116), the embedded clause is introduced by a complementizer *kung*, following by the *wh*-phrase which is, in turn, followed by another instance of C₁. Crucially, if the embedded clause C₂ of (115) is replaced by C₃ (*kung*) the result is ungrammaticality (see (117)). Likewise, if C₂ is replaced with C₁ in (116), the resulting sentence is also ungrammatical (see (118)).

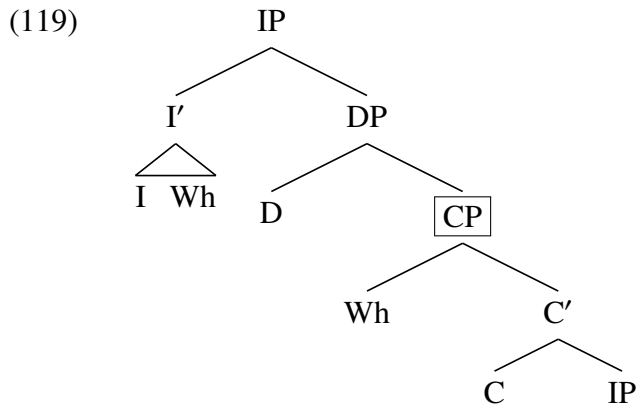
- (117) *... [CP (kung) ang binili ni Fred ____ sa tindahan]].
 C C/D ACC.PERF.buy GEN Fred LOC store
 (‘What did Maria say that Juan bought at the store?’)
- (118) *...[CP (na) sino (na) hinihintay ni Maria ____]].
 C who C IMPERF.OBL.wait-for GEN Maria
 (‘I wonder who Maria is waiting for.’)

I take the facts here to indicate one of two things: (i) Under the *Fronting*, we can assume that that root complementizer, C₁ introduces root CP[+q] and all C’s in the path between this root C is the complementizer C₂ (=C[-q]); or (ii) Under the P-Cleft analysis, on the other hand, a P-Cleft is used only for the CP that marks that (widest) scope of C[+q] (=the surface position of the *wh*-phrase; all other (embedded) clauses are introduced by C₁ (*na* and do not (therefore) involve a P-Cleft structure. In other words, sentence (115) would have the

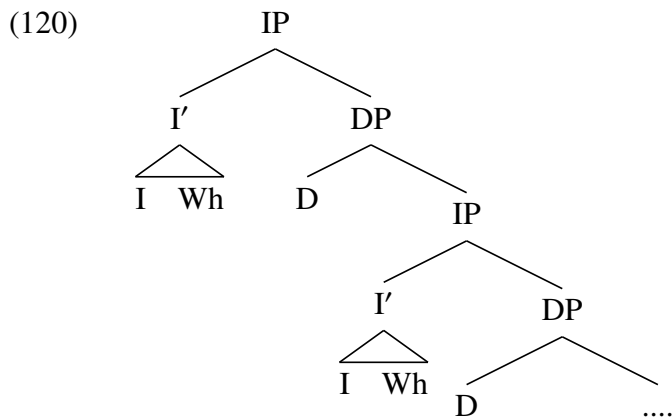
³⁷ An example

structure shown in (119).

Note that in this representation, the (boxed) embedded clause, CP, is not a P-Cleft.



If the root and (all) embedded clauses also were to take the form of a P-Cleft, the structure for ‘long distance’ *Wh*-movement would appear as in (120).³⁸



The structure in (120) is either not possible for Tagalog, or — perhaps more broadly — not possible for any language.³⁹ Why should this be so? At this point in time, I have no answer to this question either from the perspective of the P-Cleft analysis or from any other. I would argue, however, that it is an imperative question to address for advocates of a P-Cleft analysis of (simplex) *Wh*-questions. I leave the question open for now for further research.

³⁸If the structure in (120) were permitted, then a question *what do you think John will buy* would be equivalent to: *what is the thing that is the thing which John bought* (cf., *what is the thing that John thought that Mary bought*).

³⁹Adger & Ramchand (2005) do not explicitly discuss this issue, but the examples they provide seem to clearly indicate that the P-Cleft structure is only available at the root clause level.

6 Conclusion

In this paper I have argued that *Wh*-questions in Tagalog are derived by *Wh*-movement (*Fronting*). If the arguments are sound, then they cast serious doubt on the prevailing claim from the literature that *wh*-questions (in Tagalog) take the form of a *Pseudo-Cleft*. It is important to keep in mind that my claim is both limited and broad. It is limited in the sense that I cannot claim that *wh*-questions in Tagalog can never take the form of a P-Cleft (given the existence of (pseudo-)Clefts in the language in general, it is nearly quite difficult to imagine how to rule this possibility out without brute-force. My claim, instead – is a broader one, namely: *wh*-questions (even, and perhaps especially those involving arguments) do not *exclusively* make use of P-Cleft structure in forming *wh*-questions (and that, perhaps, no language does). In these concluding remarks, I'd like to consider the following question, as a means to circle-back to the beginning of the article:

- If a language exclusively uses a P-Cleft structure to form (at least a sub-set of its) *wh*-questions, what could the motivation for this be?

Given the landscape of the semantics of interrogatives, there is nothing that I can see that concerning the truth-condition based semantics that would serve as a motivation. Concretely, whether one adopts Karttunen's (1977) or the Rooth/Hamblin semantics of interrogatives (Rooth 1995; see also Kotek 2020), none of these approaches (which overlap in important, non-insignificant, ways) could be claimed to motivate a P-Cleft analysis for interrogative questions. Of course, this is presumably no accident, as such semantic theories are developed with a syntax for interrogatives involving *wh*-movement in mind. Even though this might be so, since the (truth-conditional) semantics have survived as long as they have, there is little chance of finding a motivation for an (exclusive) P-Cleft analysis here.

If there is no semantic motivation for a P-Cleft analysis (and I assume no syntactic motivation either), what motivation might remain? A survey of the literature suggests one possible answer, relating to the Cleft-sentences more generally. Concretely, ever since some of the earliest work on the pragmatics of Cleft sentences, the intuition has been expressed that Cleft sentences carry an 'exhaustiveness implication'. For instance, the speaker who utters a sentence like (121) asserts that *Mary ate pizza*, but also implies that pizza is the *only* thing that Mary ate (see, e.g., Horn 1981).

(121) It was a pizza that Mary ate.

Although this exhaustivity implicature is not directly connected to the truth-conditions of a sentence like (121), it remains an open question whether they involve conventional or non-conventional implicature, and whether languages may differ among one another with respect to how these are codified (see, e.g., Büring & Križ 2013; De Vegaugh-Geiss et. al. 2017; De Vegaugh-Geiss 2021; and references therein). De Vegaugh-Geiss (2021), in particular, demonstrates that there is variation among speakers (of Akan) relating to the general strength of the the exhaustivity implication (in an 'unover-first-judge-later' response strategy experiment), thought this variability was consistent regardless of the type of Cleft. What

is clear from De Vaughn's work, and the work that pre-dates it, is that the exhaustivity implicature associated with Clefts is not understood well-enough at this point that it could be said to be a motivation for the use of a P-Cleft analysis for interrogative questions (either cross-linguistically, or language internally).

Furthermore, and quite tellingly, Tagalog has strategies for explicitly and transparently encoding exhaustivity in *wh*-questions that would make any exhaustivity implicature arising from the use of a P-Cleft redundant or superfluous. Consider, for instance, the example in (122).

- (122) Sino-sino lahat ang kaya mo=ng ligaw-an ____?
 who-who all C able 2SG(NOM)=LK woo-ACC
 'Who all were you able to woo/court?' (web)

Speakers with whom I have consulted generally agree that questions like (122) require an exhaustive, rather than a partial, answer to the question. That is not to say that a P-Cleft might not also require non-exhaustive interpretations (or answers, if and when they are used as questions), but that is not their exclusive function and therefore an unlikely motivator for their use. As there is no semantic or semantico-pragmatic motivation for a P-Cleft analysis for a P-Cleft analysis of interrogative questions, and — taking this paper as an extended argument against any plausible syntactic motivation — there remains no explanation I can think of as to why a language would make exclusive use of a P-Cleft structure for its interrogative questions.

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